Age of Confidence: How Often Must a Shared Object Be Updated?

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***Abstract*—Connected vehicles share the objects they perceive in Collective Perception Messages. When a receiver uses such an object, the object is already old. Receivers today trust it fully up to a fixed age and then drop it. We propose to compute the confidence that an aged object deserves. We define the reliability of an object as the probability that it is still close to the position that the receiver predicts, and we give a short formula for it. The reliability stays close to one while the object is young and then falls. A receiver that combines objects with belief functions can use it directly: the older the object, the less it counts. We then compute the average reliability when the object is updated at a given rate and some updates are lost. Finally, we answer the reverse question: which update rate does an object need to reach a target reliability? With assumed values and one update in ten lost, a moving car needs one update every 0.6 s and a parked vehicle one every 9 s for the same target. In the same conditions, regular updates need about half the rate of updates sent at random times. A model in which the reliability falls from the first instant asks for several times too many updates.**

***Index Terms*—collective perception, age of information, belief functions, discounting, update rate, V2X**

I. Introduction

A connected vehicle sees with more than its own sensors. Other vehicles and roadside stations send it the objects they perceive, in Collective Perception Messages (CPMs) [1]. Fig. 1 shows a typical case. A pedestrian is about to cross the road. A parked truck hides the pedestrian from the car on the left. A second car sees the pedestrian and shares the position by radio. The first car now knows about a pedestrian that it cannot see.

But a shared object is never fresh. It was measured, processed, packed into a message, sent, received and stored before the receiver uses it. If the next message is lost, the receiver keeps the same object, and the object keeps aging. Meanwhile the pedestrian walks on. The older the object, the less the receiver knows where the pedestrian really is.

How much should the receiver trust an object that is 0.3 s old? And one that is 2 s old? Current practice gives a yes-or-no answer. Evaluations count an object as known only while its age is below 1 s [2], and a patented design discards a message when the age of its objects passes a fixed limit [3]. Studies of collective perception measure the age of the objects inside the receiver, but they do not use this age when they combine the objects [4]. A fixed limit also ignores what the object is. One second is long for a car that brakes. It is short for a parked truck.

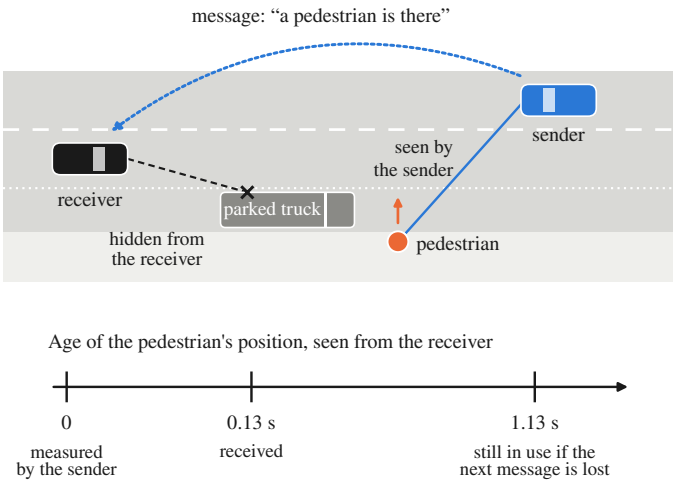


Fig. 1. The situation studied in this paper. The sender sees a pedestrian that the receiver cannot see, and shares it in a message. The position in the message is already 0.13 s old when it arrives. If the next message, one second later, is lost, the receiver still uses a position that is now 1.13 s old.

This paper asks two questions. What confidence does an object of a given age deserve? And how often must the sender update the object to keep this confidence above a target? Kaul *et al.* asked how often a sender should update a receiver so that the receiver holds fresh information [5]. They measured freshness by the age. We ask the same question for confidence. Unlike age, confidence depends on how the object moves.

We answer in four steps, shown in Fig. 2. In Step 1, we compute how the position error of an object grows with its age. In Step 2, we turn this error into a *reliability*: the probability that the object is still close to the position that the receiver predicts. Belief function theory, a framework to combine uncertain information, has an operation that gives less weight to a source that is not fully reliable [6]. The reliability is exactly the number that this operation needs. In Step 3, we compute the average reliability when the sender updates the object at a given rate and some updates are lost. In Step 4, we answer the reverse question and give the update rate that a target reliability requires.

We keep the mathematics light. Each equation is introduced

Working note, version 2, October 12, 2026. The numerical values are assumed. They are not yet fitted to real data.

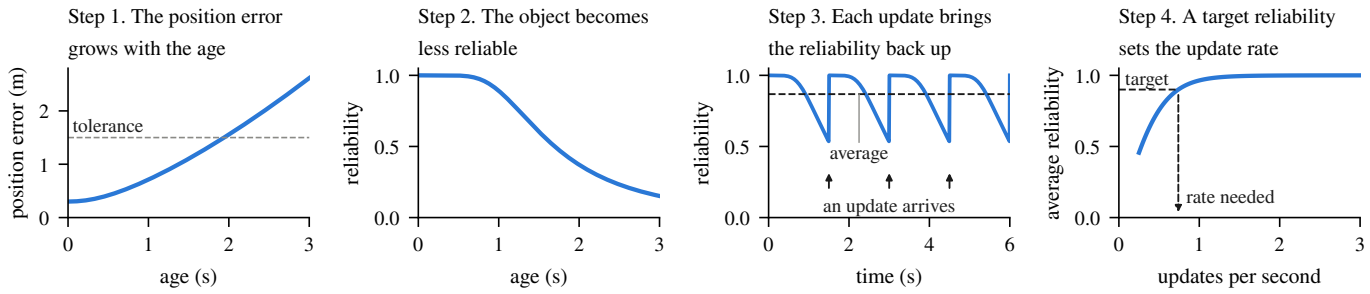


Fig. 2. The four steps of the paper, drawn for a pedestrian. Sections IV to VII take them one by one.

in words, and each symbol is defined where it appears. One example runs through the whole paper: the pedestrian of Fig. 1. Table I lists the main symbols, and the longer derivations are in the appendices.

Three results stand out.

- The reliability does not fall steadily with age. It stays close to one for a while, then falls. We call this first part the *plateau*. A model without a plateau asks for several times too many updates.
- At the same rate, regular updates give more confidence than updates sent at random times. For the same target they need about half the rate when few updates are lost.
- The required rate depends strongly on the object. For the same target, a moving car needs one update every 0.6 s and a parked vehicle one every 9 s. The current rules send the parked vehicle every second [1].

Our model is simple, and the numbers come from assumed values that are not yet fitted to real data. We see the formulas, more than the numbers, as the contribution. Section VIII states the limits of the model.

II. Related Work

Age of information. Kaul *et al.* [5] define the age of a status update as the time elapsed since the newest received update was produced. Many results followed [7], also for vehicles that must send less often because the radio channel is busy [8], [9]. In all these works the quantity of interest is the age itself. We turn the age into a confidence that depends on the object.

Collective perception. The European standard [1] includes an object in a CPM when its position, speed or direction has changed enough, or after a maximum time. Such rules are compared by the load they put on the channel and by the awareness they give [10], [11]. Awareness counts an object as known when its age is below a limit [2]. None of these works derives a confidence from the age.

Belief functions. Belief function theory represents uncertain statements and can also express "I do not know". Its discounting operation weakens a statement by a reliability factor [6], and later work refines this operation [12]. These works do not say where the factor comes from. We derive it from the age of the object and from its motion.

III. Setting and Notation

We consider one sender, one receiver and one pedestrian, as in Fig. 1. The sender perceives the pedestrian and keeps an estimate of the position and of the speed. From time to time, the sender puts this estimate in a CPM. Seen from the receiver, this estimate is the *object*, and each transmission is an *update* of the object. The receiver keeps the last update that it received. Between two updates, it assumes that the pedestrian keeps the same speed, and it moves the position forward accordingly. We call the result the *predicted position*.

Age. Each update carries the time at which the object was measured. The *age* Δ of the object is the time elapsed since that measurement. It is counted from the measurement, not from the reception. So the age is not zero when an update arrives: the update needed some time to be processed and transmitted. We call this time the *delay* d. The evaluation in [4] puts it between 119 and 133 milliseconds, and we take $d = 0.13$ s. After the arrival, the age grows by one second every second, until the next update arrives and brings it back to d.

Updates and loss. We study two ways of sending updates. *Regular updates* are sent every T seconds, where T is the *period*. *Random updates* are sent at random instants, λ times per second on average. An update is as likely at one moment as at any other, whatever happened before, so the gaps between two updates are very uneven. This case is called a Poisson process. It is the reference case in the literature on the age of information [5]. In both cases we call λ the *update rate*, in updates per second (Hz). For regular updates, $\lambda = 1/T$. The radio channel is not perfect. Each update is lost with probability p. Losing one update does not make the next loss more or less likely.

IV. Step 1: The Position Error Grows With the Age

The receiver predicts where the pedestrian is. How wrong can this prediction be? Three errors combine.

The position error of the sender. When the sender measured the pedestrian, its estimate of the position was already off by a typical error σ_x.

The speed error of the sender. The estimate of the speed is off by a typical error σ_v. A wrong speed moves the predicted position away from the true one, a little more every second. After Δ seconds, the resulting position error is $\Delta\,\sigma_v$.

TABLE I
MAIN SYMBOLS

Symbol	Meaning
Δ	age of the object: time since it was measured (s)
d	delay: age of the object when an update arrives (0.13 s)
T, λ	period between two updates (s) and update rate $\lambda = 1/T$ (updates per second, Hz)
p	probability that an update is lost
σ_x, σ_v	typical error of the sender on the position (m) and on the speed (m/s) of the object
q	maneuver intensity: how strongly the object changes its speed at random (m^2/s^3)
$\sigma(\Delta)$	typical position error at age Δ (m)
ε	tolerance: largest position error that the application accepts (1.5 m)
$\alpha(\Delta)$	reliability at age Δ, between 0 and 1
$\Delta_{1/2}$	half-life: age at which the reliability is one half (s)
L, τ	plateau length and decay time of the simple curve $\tilde{\alpha}$ (s)
α_{avg}	average of the reliability over time
$\alpha^\star$	target reliability
$\Delta^\star$	age limit: age at which the reliability falls to $\alpha^\star$ (s)

The maneuvers of the object. The pedestrian does not keep exactly the same speed. The pedestrian speeds up, slows down or turns a little, and the receiver cannot know it. We model these changes as small random pushes. Their strength is a single number q, which we call the *maneuver intensity*. A calm object has a small q.

By "typical error" we mean a standard deviation: in one direction, about two errors out of three are smaller than it. The three errors are independent. Independent errors do not simply add, because they sometimes cancel each other. It is their squares that add:

$$\sigma^2(\Delta) = \sigma_x^2 + (\Delta\,\sigma_v)^2 + \frac{q\,\Delta^3}{3}, \tag{1}$$

where

- $\sigma(\Delta)$ is the typical position error of the prediction at age Δ, in meters;
- σ_x is the typical position error of the sender at the measurement time, in meters;
- σ_v is the typical speed error of the sender, in meters per second;
- q is the maneuver intensity, in m^2/s^3;
- Δ is the age, in seconds.

The last term needs a word. The maneuver intensity q tells how fast the speed drifts: after Δ seconds of random pushes, the speed has typically changed by $\sqrt{q\Delta}$. With $q = 0.5$, this is 0.7 m/s after one second. Each change of speed then moves the position, and an early push has more time to act than a late one. Adding up all the pushes over the age gives $q\Delta^3/3$. This is the classical result for an object that moves at a nearly constant speed [13]. Equation (1) describes one direction, for example along the road. We use the same value across the road.[1]

[1]If the position error and the speed error of the sender are linked, a term $2\Delta\,\sigma_{xv}$ is added to Equation (1), where σ_{xv} measures this link (their covariance). We take it equal to zero.

Example. For the pedestrian we take $\sigma_x = 0.3$ m, $\sigma_v = 0.5$ m/s and $q = 0.5$ m^2/s^3. Section V-D explains these values. At the age of 1 s, Equation (1) gives $\sigma^2 = 0.09 + 0.25 + 0.17 = 0.51$ m^2, so $\sigma = 0.71$ m. At 2 s it gives $\sigma^2 = 0.09 + 1.00 + 1.33 = 2.42$ m^2, so $\sigma = 1.56$ m. The error does not grow in a straight line. It is small at first and then grows faster and faster (Fig. 2, Step 1). At 1 s the largest part comes from the speed error. At 2 s it comes from the maneuvers.

V. Step 2: From Position Error to Reliability

A. Definition

Is an error of 0.7 m a lot? It depends on what the receiver does with the object. We therefore introduce a *tolerance* ε: the largest position error that the application accepts. We take $\varepsilon = 1.5$ m, about half the width of a lane. With this tolerance, an object is useful as long as it tells which lane the pedestrian is in.

We define the *reliability* of an object as the probability that the true position is within the tolerance of the predicted position. Fig. 3 (top) shows the idea. Each dot is one position where the pedestrian may really be, given what the receiver knows. The circle has the radius ε around the predicted position. The reliability is the share of the dots inside the circle. When the object is fresh, all the dots are inside. As the object ages, the cloud spreads and more dots fall outside.

To compute this share, we assume that the error follows the bell-shaped Gaussian law, with the typical size $\sigma(\Delta)$ in each of the two directions. The share of the dots inside the circle is then (Appendix A)

$$\alpha(\Delta) = 1 - \exp\left(-\frac{\varepsilon^2}{2\,\sigma^2(\Delta)}\right), \tag{2}$$

where

- $\alpha(\Delta)$ is the reliability at age Δ, between 0 and 1;
- ε is the tolerance, in meters;
- $\sigma(\Delta)$ is the typical position error given by Equation (1);
- exp is the exponential function: $\exp(x) = e^x$, with $e \approx 2.72$.

Equation (2) is easy to read. Only the ratio between the tolerance and the typical error matters. When the error is small compared with the tolerance, the exponential is almost zero and the reliability is almost one. When the error equals the tolerance, the reliability is $1 - e^{-1/2} = 0.39$. This is less than the two out of three quoted in Step 1, because the pedestrian can now be off in two directions at once.

Example. For the pedestrian at the age of 1 s, $\sigma = 0.71$ m and Equation (2) gives $\alpha = 0.89$. Out of 100 possible positions, 89 are within 1.5 m of the predicted one. At 2 s, $\sigma = 1.56$ m and $\alpha = 0.37$.

B. Plateau and Half-Life

Fig. 3 (bottom) shows the reliability of the pedestrian against the age (solid curve). Two features matter.

First, the curve has a plateau. It stays close to one as long as the error is small compared with the tolerance. The reliability

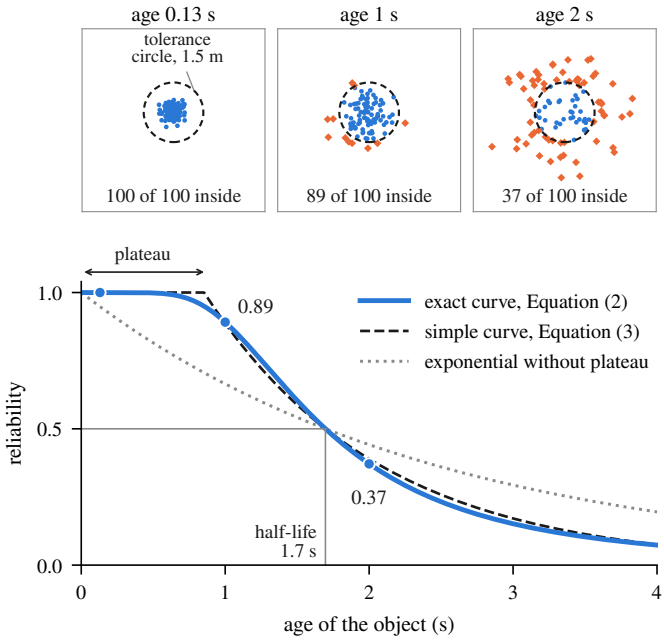


Fig. 3. Reliability of the pedestrian. Top: 100 possible positions of the pedestrian around the predicted position, at three ages. The reliability is the share of the positions inside the tolerance circle. Bottom: the reliability against the age. The three marked points are the three ages of the top row. The dashed curve is the simple curve used in Step 3. An exponential that falls from the first instant (dotted) misses the plateau.

of the pedestrian is still 0.998 at the age of 0.5 s. Only then does it fall.

Second, we can sum up the speed of the fall by one number. We use the *half-life* $\Delta_{1/2}$: the age at which the reliability has fallen to one half. For the pedestrian, $\Delta_{1/2} = 1.7$ s. Appendix B shows how to compute it.

C. A Simpler Curve for the Next Step

In Step 3 we will average the reliability over time. Equation (2) is exact, but its average cannot be written as a short formula. So we replace the exact curve by a simpler one, made of two pieces. The first piece is flat. The second piece is an exponential fall:

$$\tilde{\alpha}(\Delta) = \begin{cases} 1, & \text{if } \Delta \le L, \\ \exp\big(-(\Delta - L)/\tau\big), & \text{if } \Delta > L, \end{cases} \tag{3}$$

where

- $\tilde{\alpha}(\Delta)$ is the approximate reliability at age Δ;
- L is the *plateau length*, in seconds: up to this age, the object is treated as fully reliable;
- τ is the *decay time*, in seconds: after the plateau, the reliability is divided by 2.72 every τ seconds. A small τ means a fast fall.

We choose L and τ so that the simple curve crosses the exact curve at the levels 0.9 and 0.5 (Appendix B). For the pedestrian, $L = 0.85$ s and $\tau = 1.22$ s. The dashed curve of Fig. 3 shows the result. The two curves never differ by more than 0.06, for all the objects of Table II.

TABLE II
ASSUMED VALUES FOR FIVE OBJECTS AND RESULTING CONSTANTS ($\varepsilon = 1.5$ M)

Object	σ_a (m/s^2)	τ_m (s)	q (m^2/s^3)	$\Delta_{1/2}$ (s)	L (s)	τ (s)
Car, moving	1.0	2.0	4.00	0.99	0.54	0.64
Truck, moving	0.6	2.0	1.44	1.32	0.70	0.89
Bicycle	0.7	1.0	0.98	1.45	0.76	1.00
Pedestrian	0.5	1.0	0.50	1.70	0.85	1.22
Vehicle, parked	n.a.	n.a.	0.001	13.88	5.79	11.67

Moving objects: $\sigma_x = 0.3$ m, $\sigma_v = 0.5$ m/s. Parked vehicle: $\sigma_x = 0.5$ m, $\sigma_v = 0.05$ m/s, q set directly (n.a.: not applicable). σ_a: typical acceleration. τ_m: typical duration of a maneuver.

Why not something even simpler? The simplest choice would be an exponential that falls from the first instant, with no plateau. The dotted curve of Fig. 3 shows it for the same half-life. It misses the plateau. For the pedestrian it is up to 0.24 below the exact curve before the half-life, and up to 0.14 above it after. Step 4 will show that this error is costly.

D. Five Objects

Table II lists the values that we use for five objects. For a moving object, we assume that the sender knows the position within $\sigma_x = 0.3$ m and the speed within $\sigma_v = 0.5$ m/s. To set the maneuver intensity q, we use two numbers that are easier to picture: the typical acceleration σ_a of the object and the typical duration τ_m of one of its maneuvers. Then $q = 2\sigma_a^2\tau_m$. This relation matches our random pushes to a classical maneuver model [14]. Our model then predicts a slightly larger error than the classical one, never a smaller one. For the pedestrian, $\sigma_a = 0.5$ m/s^2 and $\tau_m = 1$ s give $q = 0.5$ m^2/s^3.

All these values are assumed. We chose them as plausible, and we did not measure them. They must be fitted to recorded trajectories before the numbers of this paper can be trusted. Even so, the table already shows one thing. The half-life goes from 1 s for a moving car to 14 s for a parked vehicle. What an object is doing matters more than what it is.

E. Using the Reliability in a Fusion

The receiver combines the objects that it receives with what its own sensors see. This step is called fusion. What should the fusion do with the reliability? Belief function theory gives a direct answer [6]. In this theory, a source shares one unit of belief between statements, and one of the statements can be "I do not know". The shares are called *masses*. Suppose that the message of the sender says "a pedestrian is there" with a mass of 0.9 and "I do not know" with a mass of 0.1.

Here the source is the aged object. Its message is true only if the pedestrian is still where the receiver predicts, and the reliability α is the probability of that. When a source is not fully reliable, the receiver weakens its message. This operation is called *discounting* [6]:

$$\begin{aligned} m^\alpha(B) &= \alpha\, m(B) \quad \text{for every statement } B \neq \Omega, \\ m^\alpha(\Omega) &= 1 - \alpha + \alpha\, m(\Omega), \end{aligned} \tag{4}$$

where

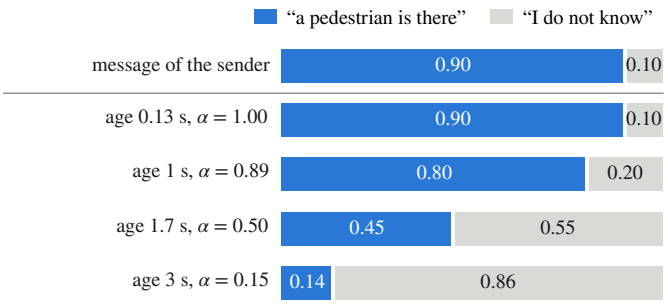


Fig. 4. What the receiver keeps of a message that says "a pedestrian is there" with a mass of 0.9. The older the object, the lower its reliability α, and the more mass moves to "I do not know" (Equation (4)).

- $m(B)$ is the mass that the sender gives to the statement B;
- Ω stands for "I do not know". Formally, it is the set of all the possible answers;
- α is the reliability of the source, here given by Equation (2);
- m^{α} is the weakened message that the receiver uses.

Equation (4) multiplies the mass of every statement by α and moves the rest to "I do not know". Fig. 4 shows the effect on our message. At the age of 1 s, the receiver keeps a mass of 0.80 for "a pedestrian is there". At the half-life it keeps 0.45, and at 3 s only 0.14. The object is never dropped all at once. It fades out.

A word on notation: many works call $1-\alpha$ the discount rate, and some denote it by α [6]. Here α is always a reliability: 1 means full trust.

VI. Step 3: Average Reliability Under Repeated Updates

So far we looked at one update that grows old. In practice the sender sends updates again and again. Fig. 5 shows what happens at the receiver. The age (top) grows, and falls back to the delay d each time an update arrives. It looks like the teeth of a saw. The reliability (bottom) follows. It stays on the plateau, starts to fall, and comes back up when the next update arrives. If an update is lost, the age keeps growing for one more period, and the reliability falls much lower. The dashed lines mark a level of 0.9 that Step 4 will use as a target.

The reliability thus changes all the time. To sum it up by one number, we use its average over time, α_{avg}. It is the reliability that the receiver finds on average when it looks at the object at an arbitrary moment.

A. Regular Updates Without Loss

We start with the simplest case: one update every T seconds, and no loss. Every period then looks the same, and we use the simple curve of Equation (3). At the start of a period, the object has the age d. It stays on the plateau until its age reaches L, that is for $L-d$ seconds. During this time its reliability is 1. During the rest of the period, that is for $T-(L-d)$ seconds, the reliability falls. The average is the area under the curve over one period, divided by the period:

$$\alpha_{\text{avg}} = \frac{1}{T}\left[(L-d) + \tau\left(1 - e^{-(T-(L-d))/\tau}\right)\right], \qquad (5)$$

where T is the period, L and τ are the plateau length and the decay time of Equation (3), and d is the delay. In the brackets, the first term $L-d$ is the time spent on the plateau, and the second term is the area under the falling part of the curve. Equation (5) holds when $T \geq L-d$. If T is shorter, the next update arrives before the object leaves the plateau, and $\alpha_{\text{avg}} = 1$. Sending more often does not help.

Example. For the pedestrian, $L-d = 0.85-0.13 = 0.72$ s. With one update per second, Equation (5) gives $\alpha_{\text{avg}} = (0.72+0.25)/1 = 0.97$. With one update every 2 s, it gives $\alpha_{\text{avg}} = (0.72+0.79)/2 = 0.76$.

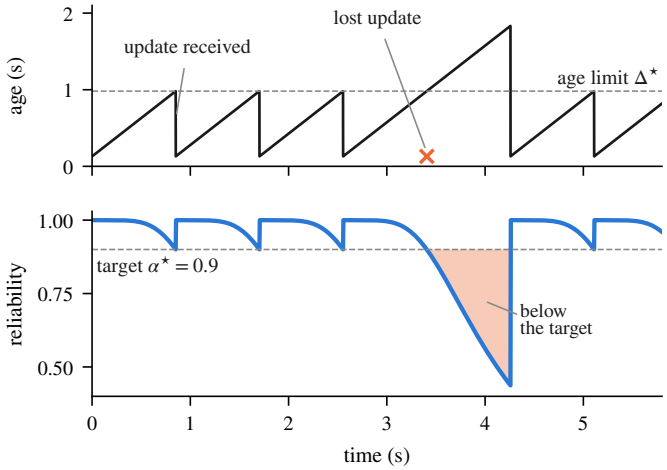


Fig. 5. Age of the pedestrian at the receiver (top) and its reliability (bottom), with one update every 0.85 s and one lost update. Each received update brings the age back to the delay d. The dashed lines mark the target used in Step 4: a reliability of 0.9, which the pedestrian reaches at the age of 0.98 s. The reliability falls below this target only after the lost update.

B. Lost Updates

With loss, the periods are no longer alike. When an update is lost, the receiver keeps the previous one. The age then reaches $d+2T$ before the next update can arrive. If two updates in a row are lost, it reaches $d+3T$, and so on. A run of k lost updates has the probability p^k. The average takes all these cases into account, each with its probability. The result is still a formula, but a longer one: Equation (10) in Appendix C.

Example. For the pedestrian with one update per second, the average reliability is 0.97 without loss. It is 0.92 when 10% of the updates are lost, and 0.81 when 30% are lost.

C. Random Updates

For random updates, the average reliability has a short formula: Equation (11) in Appendix C. At the same rate and with the same loss, random updates always give a lower average than regular updates. For the pedestrian with one update per second and a loss of 10%, the average is 0.75

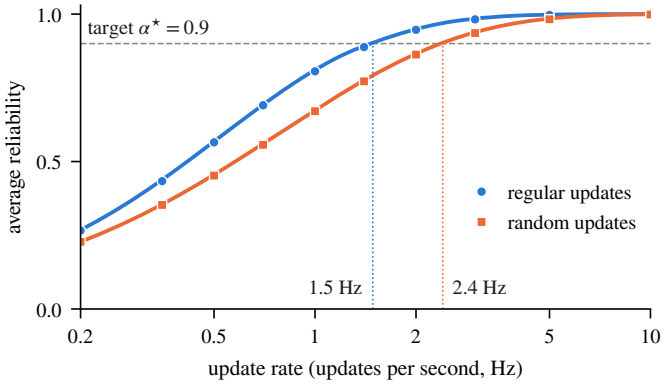


Fig. 6. Average reliability of the pedestrian against the update rate (logarithmic scale), when 30% of the updates are lost. Lines: formulas of Step 3. Markers: exact curve, averaged on a computer. To reach an average of 0.9, regular updates need 1.5 updates per second and random updates 2.4.

against 0.92. Long gaps do the damage, and random updates make them more likely. The reliability that is lost during a long gap is not won back during the short ones, because the reliability cannot go above one. Regular updates leave no long gaps.

D. How Accurate Are the Formulas?

The formulas of this section use the simple curve of Equation (3). We compared them with the average of the exact curve of Equation (2), which we computed point by point on a computer. Fig. 6 shows both for the pedestrian when 30% of the updates are lost. The lines are the formulas and the markers are the exact values.

We also tested rates from 0.1 to 10 updates per second (0.02 to 1 for the parked vehicle) and losses from 0 to 50%. The formulas stay within 2.2% of the exact average for the moving objects, and within 5.1% for the parked vehicle. With the exponential that falls from the first instant, the error reaches 19% to 22% for the moving objects. Finally, we simulated updates that are sent and lost at random. The simulated average agrees with the formulas within 0.002.

VII. Step 4: How Often Must an Object Be Updated?

We can now turn the question around. So far we chose an update rate and computed the reliability. Now we choose a target reliability $\alpha^\star$ and look for the rate that reaches it. There are two reasonable ways to state the target.

A. A Target on the Average

The first way is to require that the average reliability is at least the target: $\alpha_{\text{avg}} \geq \alpha^\star$. The average grows with the update rate (Fig. 6). So there is one smallest rate that reaches the target, and we can read it on the figure. For the pedestrian with a loss of 30%, the horizontal line at 0.9 crosses the two curves at 1.5 updates per second for regular updates and at 2.4 for random updates. In practice a computer finds this rate by trying values. Appendix D gives direct formulas for two cases.

B. A Target on the Time Above a Level

An average hides the bad moments. Take the pedestrian with regular updates, a loss of 10%, and the rate that gives an average of exactly 0.9. The reliability is then below 0.9 for 30% of the time. A stricter target limits this time directly: the reliability must stay above $\alpha^\star$ for most of the time.

This target leads to a very simple rule. Let $\Delta^\star$ be the age at which the exact reliability of Equation (2) falls to the target $\alpha^\star$. We call it the *age limit*. An update arrives with the age d. So the object stays above the target for $\Delta^\star - d$ seconds after each received update. The rule is to send n updates during this time:

$$T = \frac{\Delta^\star - d}{n}, \tag{6}$$

where T is the period, $\Delta^\star$ is the age limit, d is the delay, and n is a whole number chosen by the designer: 1, 2, 3 and so on. With this period, the reliability falls below the target only when n updates in a row are lost. This happens with the probability p^n. So the reliability is above the target for a share $1 - p^n$ of the time.

Example. For the pedestrian and a target of 0.9, the age limit is $\Delta^\star = 0.98$ s. With $n = 1$, Equation (6) gives $T = 0.98 - 0.13 = 0.85$ s. Fig. 5 uses this period: the reliability touches the target at the end of each period and goes below it only after the lost update. With a loss of 10%, the reliability is above the target for 90% of the time with $n = 1$, and for 99% of the time with $n = 2$. Note that Equation (6) uses the exact curve. It does not need the simple curve.

C. Required Rates

Table III gives the update rates needed for a target of 0.9. All the values are computed with the exact curve of Equation (2).

First, regular updates need about half the rate of random updates when the loss is 10%. When the loss is 30%, they need about 60% of it (Fig. 6). Second, Equation (6) with $n = 1$ keeps the reliability above 0.9 for 90% of the time when the loss is 10%. It costs about 30% more updates than the target on the average. Third, the required rate differs by more than a factor of ten between a moving car and a parked vehicle.

A model without a plateau would give a very different table. If the reliability falls from the first instant, the object has already lost some reliability when it arrives: after the delay of 0.13 s, the pedestrian is at 0.95 instead of 1. Little room is left above a target of 0.9. With a loss of 10%, this model asks for about 5 times the rates of Table III for the pedestrian, and for 16 to 18 times for the car.

D. Current Rules and Channel Limits

How do these rates compare with what vehicles send today? The European rules [1] include a vehicle in a CPM when it has moved by 4 m, or changed its speed by 0.5 m/s or its direction by 4 degrees, and at the latest after 1 s. A car at 50 km/h moves 4 m in about 0.3 s, so it is sent about 3.3 times per second. Pedestrians and cyclists are included every 0.5 s. Fig. 7 puts the two side by side. With our assumed values, the current rules send every object more often than a

TABLE III
UPDATE RATE (UPDATES PER SECOND) NEEDED FOR A TARGET $\alpha^\star = 0.9$

	Target on the average				Equation (6)
	Regular updates			Random	with $n = 1$
Updates lost:	none	10%	30%	10%	any
Car, moving	1.32	1.63	2.67	3.36	2.08
Truck, moving	0.96	1.18	1.93	2.43	1.50
Bicycle	0.86	1.07	1.74	2.19	1.36
Pedestrian	0.74	0.91	1.49	1.87	1.17
Vehicle, parked	0.09	0.11	0.19	0.23	0.15

Exact curve of Equation (2), delay $d = 0.13$ s. A rate of 0.11 means one update every 9 s.

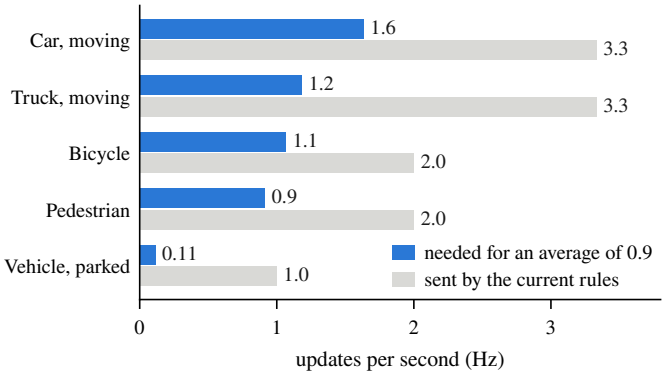


Fig. 7. Update rate needed for an average reliability of 0.9 (regular updates, loss of 10%), against the rate at which the current rules [1] send the object when the radio channel is free. Moving vehicles are taken at 50 km/h. Assumed values, not fitted to data.

target of 0.9 on the average needs: about twice as often for the moving car, and nine times for the parked vehicle. A stricter target changes the picture for fast objects. Equation (6) with $n = 2$ asks for 4.2 updates per second for the car, which is more than the rules send. These comparisons rest on assumed values, on one tolerance and on one target. They only suggest where radio traffic can be saved, and parked vehicles are the first candidates.

The radio channel also sets a limit. When the channel is busy, a mechanism called decentralized congestion control makes every vehicle send less often. In the example given by the standard [17], a vehicle may send 10 messages per second when the channel is busy less than 30% of the time, and only 1 message per second when it is busy more than 60% of the time. With a loss of 10%, regular updates at 2 per second keep the average reliability above 0.93 for every object of Table II. At 1 per second, only the pedestrian and the parked vehicle stay above 0.9, and the moving car falls to 0.74. A target of 0.9 is therefore out of reach for fast objects when the channel is very busy. The formulas of Step 3 then give the confidence that remains.

VIII. LIMITS OF THE MODEL

Strong maneuvers. Our random pushes are a fair model of small changes of speed. A turn or a hard braking is different. The error then goes in one direction and grows fast. With a constant braking of 2 m/s^2, the prediction is off by 1.5 m after 1.2 s. A model made of random pushes does not cover this case.

Loss. We assumed that each loss is independent of the others. On a real channel, losses come in bursts. We expect bursts to make long gaps more likely, and so to lower the confidence.

Delay and values. We took the delay as constant. A delay that varies shortens the plateau by a random amount. Finally, all the numbers rest on Table II. The formulas do not.

IX. CONCLUSION

We asked how much confidence an aged object deserves and how often it must be updated. The answer fits in a few equations. Equation (1) gives the position error of an object from its age, and Equation (2) turns this error into a reliability that a fusion can use. Equation (5) gives the average reliability for a given update rate, and Equation (6) the period that keeps the reliability above a target.

The main lesson is that the right update rate depends on the object. A parked vehicle and a moving car do not need the same number of updates. The next steps are to fit the values to recorded trajectories, to check the formulas in a network simulation, and to use the reliability in a fusion based on belief functions.

APPENDIX A
WHERE EQUATION (2) COMES FROM

Call e_1 and e_2 the errors of the predicted position along the road and across it. We assume that they are independent and that each follows a Gaussian law with a mean of zero and a standard deviation σ. The distance between the predicted position and the true one is $\rho = \sqrt{e_1^2 + e_2^2}$. The probability that this distance is below the tolerance, written $\Pr\{\rho \le \varepsilon\}$, is the integral of the Gaussian law over the disc of radius ε. In polar coordinates,

$$\Pr\{\rho \le \varepsilon\} = \int_0^{\varepsilon} \frac{\rho}{\sigma^2}\, e^{-\rho^2/(2\sigma^2)}\, d\rho = 1 - e^{-\varepsilon^2/(2\sigma^2)}, \quad (7)$$

which is Equation (2). In practice the error is often larger in one direction than in the other. Using the larger of the two values of σ in Equation (2) then gives a reliability that is never too high [15].

APPENDIX B
HALF-LIFE, AGE LIMIT AND SIMPLE CURVE

At which age Δ_ℓ does the reliability fall to a given level ℓ? Setting $\alpha(\Delta_\ell) = \ell$ in Equation (2) and using Equation (1) gives

$$\frac{q}{3}\,\Delta_\ell^3 + \sigma_v^2\,\Delta_\ell^2 = \frac{\varepsilon^2}{2\ln\!\big(1/(1-\ell)\big)} - \sigma_x^2, \quad (8)$$

where $\ln$ is the natural logarithm. The left side grows with Δ_ℓ, so Equation (8) has one solution when its right side is positive. A computer finds it in a few steps. The level $\ell = 1/2$ gives the half-life $\Delta_{1/2}$. It exists when $\sigma_x < 0.85\,\varepsilon$. The level $\ell = \alpha^\star$ gives the age limit $\Delta^\star$ of Step 4.

The simple curve of Equation (3) crosses the exact curve at the levels 0.9 and 0.5. Call $\Delta_{0.9}$ and $\Delta_{0.5}$ the two ages given by Equation (8). Then

$$\tau = \frac{\Delta_{0.5} - \Delta_{0.9}}{\ln 2 - \ln(10/9)}, \qquad L = \Delta_{0.9} - \tau \ln(10/9). \tag{9}$$

Appendix C
Average Reliability With Loss

Regular updates. Look at the receiver at an arbitrary moment. The last sending instant was between 0 and T seconds ago, and all the values in between are equally likely. The update sent at that instant was received with the probability $1 - p$. If it was lost, the last received update is one period older, and so on. So the time since the last received update lies between kT and $(k+1)T$ with the probability $(1-p)\,p^k$, for $k = 0, 1, 2$ and so on. The age of the object is this time plus the delay d.

Now write $L - d = jT + r$, where j is a whole number and $0 \le r < T$. In words, j full periods fit in the time that the object spends on the plateau, and r is what remains. Averaging the simple curve of Equation (3) over all the cases gives

$$\alpha_{\text{avg}} = 1 - p^j + (1-p)\,p^j \left[\frac{r}{T} + \frac{\tau}{T}\left(1 - \frac{(1-p)\,e^{-(T-r)/\tau}}{1 - p\,e^{-T/\tau}}\right)\right]. \tag{10}$$

The term $1 - p^j$ is the probability that fewer than j updates in a row were lost. The object is then still on the plateau. Without loss ($p = 0$) and with $T \ge L - d$ ($j = 0$), Equation (10) becomes Equation (5).

Random updates. The received updates arrive at random instants, μ times per second on average, with $\mu = (1-p)\lambda$. The time since the last received update is then longer than t seconds with the probability $e^{-\mu t}$. Averaging the simple curve gives

$$\alpha_{\text{avg}} = 1 - \frac{e^{-\mu(L-d)}}{1 + \mu\,\tau}. \tag{11}$$

Both formulas assume $L \ge d$, which holds for all the objects of Table II.

Appendix D
Direct Formulas for the Required Rate

Equation (11) can be solved for the rate. Write $u = (L - d)/\tau$. The smallest rate of random updates that reaches the target $\alpha^\star$ on the average is

$$\lambda_{\min} = \frac{1}{(1-p)\,\tau}\left[\frac{1}{u}\,W\!\left(\frac{u\,e^u}{1-\alpha^\star}\right) - 1\right], \tag{12}$$

where W is the Lambert function [16]: $W(x)$ is the number w such that $w\,e^w = x$. Numerical libraries provide it, and we use its main branch, the one that they return by default. For regular updates without loss, Equation (5) gives the longest period that reaches the target:

$$T_{\max} = (L - d) + \frac{c}{\alpha^\star} + \tau\,W\!\left(-\frac{1}{\alpha^\star}\,e^{-c/(\alpha^\star\,\tau)}\right), \tag{13}$$

with $c = (L - d)(1 - \alpha^\star) + \tau$. With loss, a computer solves Equation (10) by trying values: the average falls when the period grows, so a search by successive halving finds the longest period. Equation (12) and Equation (13) reproduce the values of Table III within 2% for the moving objects.

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